

1. Parties in research?

Mostly three parties:

1. The researcher
2. The sponsoring client (user)
3. The respondent (subject)

2. Role of theory in science? Role of theory in Research?

Theory as orientation. Framework. Phenomenon may be studied in different ways. Narrows the range of facts to be studied. Study of football.

- Theory as conceptualization and classification. Provides concepts.
- Theory in summarizing role. Empirical generalizations.
- Theory predicts facts. Extrapolation.
- Theory points gaps in knowledge.

3. Theoretical framework and its basic point?

A good theoretical framework identifies and labels the important variables in the situation that are relevant to the problem identified. It logically describes the interconnections among these variables

1. Make an inventory of variables
2. Specify the direction of relationship
3. Give a clear explanation of why we should expect the proposed relationships to exist.
4. Make an inventory of propositions
5. Arrange these propositions in a sequential order
6. Schematic diagram of the theoretical model be given.

4. Three responsibility of participant?

☐ No physical harm, discomfort, pain, embarrassment, or loss of privacy. Follow three guidelines:

1. Explain study benefits.
2. Explain respondent rights and protections.
3. Obtain informed consent.

5. Two basic power of research? Two basic power of knowledge?

Empiricism:

- Sensory experience
- positivism.

Rationalism:

- Explanation for regularity.
- Consequential arguments.
- Logical.

6. Source of concept?

We create concepts from personal experience. Mass, speed, family. we borrow from other disciplines. We develop a specialized jargon or terminology for a Particular subject

7. Purposive sampling?

Researcher lays down the criteria for the subjects. Also called as judgmental or expert opinion sample. Selection depends upon the judgment of selector

8. Theoretical review?

Compare how different theories address an issue. Evaluate different theories for the soundness of their assumptions, logical consistency, and scope of explanation. Researcher may integrate two theories – form a hybrid

9. Relationship of variable?

Relationship among variables. Logical. A statement concerned with the theoretical relationship among variables is a proposition. If the relationship refers to an observable reality, then the proposition may be testable call it a hypothesis

10. Name the parties in research?

Mostly three parties:

- The researcher
- The sponsoring client (user)
- The respondent (subject)

Interaction requires ethical questions.
Each party expects certain rights and feels certain obligations.

11. Exploratory and descriptive research?

Exploratory: Initial research conducted to clarify and define the nature of the problem. Exploring a new topic.
☐ Specifically, there could be number of goals of exploratory research.

Descriptive: ☐ Research designed to describe characteristics of the phenomenon under study. ☐ Helps in diagnostic analysis

12. Dependent and independent variable?

An **independent variable** is the **variable** that is changed or controlled in a scientific experiment to test the effects on the **dependent variable**. A **dependent variable** is the **variable** being tested and measured in a scientific experiment. The **dependent variable** is 'dependent' on the **independent variable**.

13. Right of participant?

☐ No physical harm, discomfort, pain, embarrassment, or loss of privacy. Follow three guidelines: 1. Explain study benefits. 2. Explain respondent rights and protections. 3. Obtain informed consent.

14. Validation of experiment?

Validity refers to confidence in cause and effect relationship. ☐ Internal validity is high in Laboratory experiments. ☐ External validity (generalizability) is not sure.

15. Several way to protect confidentiality in research? 5

☐ Obtaining signed nondisclosure documents. ☐ Restricting access to respondent's identification ☐ Revealing respondent information only with written consent. ☐ Restricting access to data instruments where the respondent is identified. ☐ Nondisclosure of data subsets.

16. External validity in research? 5

External validity (generalizability) is not sure. Organizational or field setting. Several confounding variables. Field experiments have more external validity but less internal validity. • First have lab experiments then test in field setting.

17. Cross sectional and longitudinal studies? 5

Cross-Sectional Research: Observe at one point in time, Snapshot study

Longitudinal Research: Examine at more than one time. Can be ☐ • Time series study. • Panel study. • Cohort study – Category of people who share the same experience.

18. How to locate research report? 5

☐ Articles in scholarly journals. ☐ Locating the relevant articles is difficult. ☐ Many academic field have —abstractsll or —indexesll for scholarly literature. ☐ Look in reference section of library ☐ Also available on computer.

19. Applied criteria of sampling design? 5

☐ Selecting some of the elements in the population and draw conclusions about the total population. ☐ Population element is the subject on which measurement is being taken. ☐ Has its advantages and disadvantages. ☐ Selection of appropriate sampling design

20. Communication analysis in research? 5

analysis is a systematic, quantitative approach to analyzing the content or meaning of communicative messages. Content **analysis** is a descriptive approach to **communication research**, and as such is used to describe communicative phenomenon

21. Research confidential ways? 5

- Obtaining signed nondisclosure documents.
- Restricting access to respondent’s identification
- Revealing respondent information only with written consent.
- Restricting access to data instruments where the respondent is identified.
- Nondisclosure of data subsets.

22. Sources of Concept 2

Sources of Concepts

Everyday culture is filled with concepts, but many of them have vague and unclear definitions. Likewise, the values and experiences of people in a culture may limit everyday concepts. Nevertheless, we borrow concepts from everyday culture; though these to be refined.

We create concepts from personal experiences, creative thought, or observation. The classical theorist originated many concepts like family system, gender role, socialization, self-worth, frustration, and displaced aggression. We also borrow concepts from sister disciplines.

23. Dependent and Independent Variables

Researchers who focus on causal relations usually begin with an effect, and then search for its causes. The cause variable, or the one that identifies forces or conditions that act on something else, is the *independent variable*. The variable that is the effect or is the result or outcome of another variable is the *dependent variable* (also referred to as outcome variable or effect variable). The independent variable is “independent of” prior causes that act on it, whereas the dependent variable “depends on” the cause.

It is not always easy to determine whether a variable is independent or dependent. Two questions help to identify the independent variable. First, does it come before other variable in time? Second, if the variables occur at the same time, does the researcher suggest that one variable has an impact on another variable? Independent variables affect or have an impact on other variables. When independent variable is present, the dependent variable is also present, and with each unit of increase in the independent variable, there is an increase or decrease in the dependent variable also. In other words, the variance in dependent variable is accounted for by the independent variable. Dependent variable is also referred to as *criterion* variable.

24. Rights of Participants in Study. 3

Sponsor’s Ethics

Occasionally, research specialists may be asked by the sponsors to participate in unethical behavior. Compliance by the researcher would be a breach of ethical standards. Some examples to be avoided are;

- Violating respondent confidentiality.
- Changing data or creating false data to meet the desired objective.
- Changing data presentation or interpretations.
- Interpreting data from a biased perspective.
- Omitting sections of data analysis and conclusions.
- Making recommendations beyond the scope of data collected.

25. Theoretical Framework, Six Features? 3

A theoretical framework is conceptual model of how one theorizes or makes logical sense of the relationships among several factors that have been identified as important to the problem under study. These factors which may also be called as variables may have been identified through such processes as interviews with informants, observations, and literature survey. The theoretical framework discusses the interrelationships among the variables that are considered to be integral to the dynamics of the situation being investigated..

The Components of the Theoretical Framework

A good theoretical framework identifies and labels the important variables in the situation that are relevant to the problem identified. It logically describes the interconnections among these variables.

The relationships among the independent variables, the dependent variable(s), and if applicable, the moderating and intervening variables are elaborated.

The elaboration of the variables in the theoretical framework addresses the issues of why or how we expect certain relationships to exist, and the nature and direction of the relationships among the variables of interest. At the end, the whole discussion can be portrayed in a schematic diagram. There are six basic features that should be incorporated in any theoretical framework. These features are:

1. **Make an inventory of variables:** For developing a framework it appears essential to identify the factors relevant to the problem under study. These factors are the empirical realities which can be named at some abstract level called concepts. The concepts taking more than one value are the variables. In other words, the researcher makes *an inventory of relevant variables*. The variables considered relevant to the study should be clearly identified and labeled in the discussion.
2. **Specify the direction of relationship:** If the nature and direction of relationship can be theorized on the basis of the findings of previous research, then there should be an indication in the discussion as to whether the relationship should be positive or negative.
3. **Give a clear explanation of why we should expect the proposed relationships to exist.** There should be clear explanation of why we would expect these relationships to exist. The arguments could be drawn from the previous research findings. The discussions should state how two or more variables are related to one another. This should be done for the important relationships that are theorized to exist among the variables. It is essential to theorize logical relationship between different variables.
4. **Make an inventory of propositions:** Stipulation of logical relationship between any two variables means the formulation of a proposition. If such relationships have been proposed between different variables, it will result in the formulation of a number of propositions. Let us call such a collection of propositions as *an inventory of propositions*. Each proposition is backed up by strong theoretical argumentation.
5. **Arrange these propositions in a sequential order:** one proposition generates the next proposition, which generates the next following proposition, which in turn generates the next following proposition, and so on. This is an axiomatic way of the derivation of propositions. Resultantly it will provide us a sequentially arranged set of propositions which are interlinked and interlocked with each other. Theory, if you remember, is an interrelated set of propositions. Therefore, the present interrelated set of propositions relevant to a particular problem is in fact a theoretical framework explaining the pathways of logical relationships between different variables.
6. **Schematic diagram of the theoretical model be given:** A schematic diagram of the theoretical framework should be given so that the reader can see and easily comprehend the theorized relationships.

26. Difference between Exploratory and descriptive research. 5

a. Exploratory/Formulative Research

You may be **exploring a new topic** or issue in order to learn about it. If the issue was new or the researcher has written little on it, you began at the beginning. This is called *exploratory research*. The researcher's goal is to formulate more precise questions that future research can answer. Exploratory research may be the first stage in a sequence of studies. A researcher may need to know enough to design and execute a second, more systematic and extensive study.

Initial research conducted to clarify the nature of the problem. When a researcher has a limited amount of experience with or knowledge about a research issue,

exploratory research is useful preliminary step that helps ensure that a more rigorous, more conclusive future study will not begin with an inadequate understanding of the nature of the management problem. The findings discovered through exploratory research would the researchers to emphasize learning more about the particulars of the findings in subsequent conclusive studies.

Exploratory research rarely yields definitive answers. It addresses the “what” question: “what is this social activity really about?” It is difficult to conduct because there are few guidelines to follow. Specifically, there could be a number of goals of exploratory research.

Goals of Exploratory Research:

1. Become familiar with the basic facts, setting, and concerns;

2. Develop well-grounded picture of the situation;
3. Develop tentative theories, generate new ideas, conjectures, or hypotheses;
4. Determine the feasibility of conducting the study;
5. Formulate questions and refine issues for more systematic inquiry; and
6. Develop techniques and a sense of direction for future research.

For exploratory research, the researcher may use different sources for getting information like

- (1) experience surveys,
- (2) secondary data analysis,
- (3) case studies, and
- (4) pilot studies.

As part of the experience survey the researcher tries to contact individuals who are knowledgeable about a particular research problem. This constitutes an informal experience survey.

Another economical and quick source of background information is secondary data analysis. It is preliminary review of data collected for another purpose to clarify issues in the early stages of a research effort.

The purpose of case study is to obtain information from one or a few situations that are similar to the researcher’s problem situation. A researcher interested in doing a nationwide survey among union workers, may first look at a few local unions to identify the nature of any problems or topics that should be investigated.

A pilot study implies that some aspect of the research is done on a small scale. For this purpose focus group discussions could be carried out.

b. Descriptive Research

Descriptive research presents a picture of the specific details of a situation, social setting, or relationship. The major purpose of descriptive research, as the term implies, is to describe characteristics of a population or phenomenon. Descriptive research seeks to determine the answers to *who, what, when, where, and how* questions. Labor Force Surveys, Population Census, and Educational Census are examples of such research.

Descriptive study offers to the researcher a profile or description of relevant aspects of the phenomena of interest. Look at the class in research methods and try to give its profile – the characteristics of the students. When we start to look at the relationship of the variables, then it may help in diagnosis analysis.

Goals of Descriptive Research

1. Describe the situation in terms of its characteristics i.e. provide an accurate profile of a group;
2. Give a verbal or numerical picture (%) of the situation;
3. Present background information;
4. Create a set of categories or classify the information;
5. Clarify sequence, set of stages; and
6. Focus on ‘who,’ ‘what,’ ‘when,’ ‘where,’ and ‘how’ but not why?

A great deal of social research is descriptive. Descriptive researchers use most data –gathering techniques – surveys, field research, and content analysis

27. Difference between cross sectional studies & longitudinal Studies. 5

Cross-Sectional Studies are carried out once and represent a snapshot of one point in time. Data are collected just once, perhaps over a period of days or weeks or months, in order to answer the research question.

Longitudinal Studies are repeated over an extended period. The advantage of longitudinal studies is that it can track changes over time. For example, the researcher might want to study employees’ behavior before and after a change in the top management, so as to know what effects the change accomplished. Here, because data are gathered at two different points in time, the study is not cross- sectional or of the one-shot kind, but is carried longitudinally across a period of time. Such studies, as when data on the dependent variable are gathered at two or more points in time to answer the

research question, are called longitudinal. Longitudinal studies can be *panel studies* and *cohort studies* which were discussed earlier.

Cross-sectional study

Both the cross-sectional and the longitudinal studies are observational studies. This means that researchers record information about their subjects without manipulating the study environment. In our study, we would simply measure the cholesterol levels of daily walkers and non-walkers along with any other characteristics that might be of interest to us. We would not influence non-walkers to take up that activity, or advise daily walkers to modify their behaviour. In short, we'd try not to interfere.

The defining feature of a cross-sectional study is that it can compare different population groups at a single point in time. Think of it in terms of taking a snapshot. Findings are drawn from whatever fits into the frame.

To return to our example, we might choose to measure cholesterol levels in daily walkers across two age groups, over 40 and under 40, and compare these to cholesterol levels among non-walkers in the same age groups. We might even create subgroups for gender. However, we would not consider past or future cholesterol levels, for these would fall outside the frame. We would look only at cholesterol levels at one point in time.

The benefit of a cross-sectional study design is that it allows researchers to compare many different variables at the same time. We could, for example, look at age, gender, income and educational level in relation to walking and cholesterol levels, with little or no additional cost.

However, cross-sectional studies may not provide definite information about cause-and-effect relationships. This is because such studies offer a snapshot of a single moment in time; they do not consider what happens before or after the snapshot is taken. Therefore, we can't know for sure if our daily walkers had low cholesterol levels before taking up their exercise regimes, or if the behaviour of daily walking helped to reduce cholesterol levels that previously were high.

Longitudinal study

A longitudinal study, like a cross-sectional one, is observational. So, once again, researchers do not interfere with their subjects. However, in a longitudinal study, researchers conduct several observations of the same subjects over a period of time, sometimes lasting many years.

The benefit of a longitudinal study is that researchers are able to detect developments or changes in the characteristics of the target population at both the group and the individual level. The key here is that longitudinal studies extend beyond a single moment in time. As a result, they can establish sequences of events.

To return to our example, we might choose to look at the change in cholesterol levels among women over 40 who walk daily for a period of 20 years. The longitudinal study design would account for cholesterol levels at the onset of a walking regime and as the walking behaviour continued over time. Therefore, a longitudinal study is more likely to suggest cause-and-effect relationships than a cross-sectional study by virtue of its scope.

In general, the research should drive the design. But sometimes, the progression of the research helps determine which design is most appropriate. Cross-sectional studies can be done more quickly than longitudinal studies. That's why researchers might start with a crosssectional study to first establish whether there are links or associations between certain variables. Then they would set up a longitudinal study to study cause and effect.

28.Rights of Participants in Study. 3

- To be told about the reasonably foreseeable risks of being in the study.
- To be told about the possible benefits of being in the study.
- To be told whether there are any costs associated with being in the study and whether you will be compensated for participating in the study.
- To be told who will have access to information collected about you and how your confidentiality will be protected.

- To be told whom to contact with questions about the research, about research-related injury, and about your rights as a research subject.

29.What is research?2

Research is the process of finding of finding solution to a problem after through study and analysis of the situational factors. It is gathering information needed to answer a question and thereby help in solving the problem.

30. What are characteristics of scientific method?3

1. Empirical
2. Verifiable
3. Cumulative
4. Deterministic
5. Ethical and ideological Neutrality
6. Statistical generalization
7. Rationalism

31.What is historiography 2

Historiography is the method of doing historical research or of gathering and analyzing historical evidence.

32.Difference between survey interview and field research interview 3

Survey Interview

- It has a clear beginning and end.
- The same standard questions are asked and in same sequence.
- Interviewer appears neutral at all times.

Field Interview

- The beginning and end are not clear.
- Questions and order are tailored to specific people and situations.
- Interviewer shows interest in responses, encourages elaboration.

33. Two types of grounded theory study 2

The two popular approaches to grounded theory are the systematic procedures of Strauss and Corbin (1990, 1998) and the constructivist approach of Charmaz (2005, 2006).

34.Enlist parts of main body of report 3

Main body

1. Introduction
2. Methodology
3. Results
4. Conclusions and recommendations
5. References

35.Difference between ethnography and phenomenology 3

Ethnography is a qualitative design in which the researcher describes and interprets the shared and learned patterns of values, behaviors, beliefs, and language of a culturesharing group,

A **phenomenological** study describes the meaning for several individuals of their *lived experiences* of a concept or a phenomenon.

36.Difference between realistic and critical ethnography 5

- The realist ethnography is a traditional approach used by cultural anthropologists. It reflects a particular stance taken by the researcher toward the individuals being studied
- The critical ethnography involves the authors advocate for the emancipation of groups marginalized in society

37. Sources of Concept 2

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